Assignment 2: Optimised Dense Matrix Multiplication and Sparse Matrices in C

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Code repository: `https://github.com/hugogzfz/bd-assignment2-matmul`

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Abstract

Question. How much do loop reordering and cache blocking speed up the basic dense $n \times n$ `float64` product in sequential C, and for which sizes, densities and nonzero structures does an own CSR×CSR multiplication beat the dense methods once conversion and output costs are included? **Method.** The Assignment 1 i-j-k baseline, an i-k-j version and a blocked version (tile 96) read identical inputs and perform bit-identical arithmetic; a Gustavson-style CSR kernel is compared with them on the same logical matrices (random and banded, 0.1–90% nonzeros, $n = 500$–2000) and scaled with CSR inputs to $n = 64000$. Monotonic timers, warm-up, 2–10 samples, median and IQR, budgets of 300 s and 4 GiB, validation against NumPy/SciPy and 377 correctness checks. **Results.** i-k-j is 1.5–6.9× and blocked up to 9.9× faster than the baseline; blocking pays only for $n \gtrsim 1250$ (1.4–1.7× over i-k-j); the largest feasible dense size doubles from 3000 to 6000. The CSR kernel is 10^2–10^5× faster for $d \leq 1\%$, 2–3× at 50% and slower above a break-even of about 70–85%; conversion removes most of the advantage at high sparsity and products of random matrices fill in after a few percent; at equal density banded inputs run 15× faster than random ones. **Scope.** One virtual machine, between-process variability of 13–35%, no hardware counters: conclusions apply to these implementations and settings only.

1 Introduction and objective

Assignment 1 [1] measured the basic triple-loop multiplication in C, Java and Python and found that, even though the operation count is exactly n^3, the *time per multiply–add* grows with n: in C it rose from about 1.0–1.4 ns for $n \leq 1000$ to 6.8 ns at $n = 3000$, and $n = 512$ and 1024 were slower than their neighbours. That was attributed (as a hypothesis, not measured) to the strided walk down the columns of B. This study keeps the *same C baseline, the same input matrices and the same machine class* and asks two questions about what can be done about it.

Research questions.

Q-A *How much do two sequential optimisations of the dense $n \times n$ `float64` product (loop reordering i-k-j, and cache blocking) reduce the runtime of the basic i-j-k baseline as n grows, when all three methods use the same inputs, numeric type, arithmetic and timing boundary?*

Q-B *For which matrix sizes, densities (percentage of nonzero entries) and nonzero structures does a CSR×CSR sparse multiplication beat the dense methods on the same logical matrices, and how large are the costs of format conversion and of the (possibly denser) output?*

Factors and outcomes. Q-A: factor = method (3 levels) and size n; Q-B: factor = method (sparse versus dense), n, density d and structure (random versus banded). Outcomes: time of one multiplication (kernel only, plus the separately timed conversion), peak resident memory, and the number of nonzeros of the product. Everything is sequential and single-threaded; parallel and vectorised variants belong to Assignment 3.

Hypotheses (predictions). Formulated after a short pilot at $n = 1500$ (used only to choose the tile size, see Section 3.6) and a smoke test of the driver at $n = 500$, and *before* the main measurements were analysed.

- H1 i-k-j is faster than i-j-k, and the gain grows with n, because its inner loop walks B and C with unit stride while i-j-k walks a column of B with stride $8n$ bytes.
- H2 Blocking gives a further gain over i-k-j only once the matrices no longer fit in the caches; because the kernels are scalar (no SIMD at `-O2`), the extra gain is expected to be modest ($\lesssim 1.5\times$).
- H3 The three dense methods produce *bit-for-bit identical* results, since each c_{ij} accumulates the same products in the same order (blocking only splits the k range into consecutive chunks).
- H4 CSR×CSR is much faster than the dense methods at high sparsity because its work is proportional to the number of useful products ($\approx d^2n^3$ for random inputs) and not to n^3; the advantage shrinks as d grows because of indirect indexing, and a break-even density exists. For random inputs the product fills in quickly ($\mathrm{nnz}(C)/n^2 \approx 1 - e^{-nd^2}$), whereas a banded product stays banded.
- H5 The conversion dense→CSR costs $\Theta(n^2)$ and dominates the total time at very high sparsity.
- H6 Memory: dense methods need $24\,n^2$ bytes (three matrices); the CSR kernel needs ≈ 12 bytes per stored nonzero plus the operands in dense form when it is fed from dense files.

The densities 70% and 90% were added to the declared list after the smoke test at $n = 500$ showed that the break-even density of H4 lay above the first planned maximum (50%).

Scope. The conclusions are limited to the implementations, compiler options, inputs and the virtual machine of Section 3.3. They are not a general statement about optimisation techniques or sparse libraries.

2 Background

Loop order and the memory hierarchy. With row-major storage, the i-j-k loop reads a_{ik} along a row but b_{kj} along a column (stride $8n$ bytes), so for large n almost every access to B touches a new cache line and, from $n = 512$, a new 4 KiB page [7, 8]. Reordering the loops to i-k-j makes the innermost loop update a row of C with a row of B (unit stride) and keeps a_{ik} in a register; the number of floating-point operations is unchanged.

Cache blocking. Processing the product in $b \times b$ tiles lets the three tiles of A, B and C stay in a cache level while they are reused b times [3, 4]. The three tiles occupy $3 \cdot 8b^2$ bytes, which should fit in the L1 data cache (32 KiB per core here) for $b \leq 36$, or in the L2 cache (1 MiB per core) for $b \leq 209$.

Sparse matrices and CSR. Compressed Sparse Row (CSR) stores a matrix as three arrays: the row pointers (`ptr`, $n + 1$ entries), the column index and the value of each nonzero [6]. Here `ptr` is `int64`, indices are `int32` and values `float64`: 12 bytes per nonzero plus $8(n + 1)$ bytes. Gustavson's row-wise algorithm [5] computes row i of C as the sum of the rows k of B scaled by the nonzeros a_{ik} of row i of A, accumulating in a dense workspace of length n; the work is the number of products with both factors nonzero, $\sum_k \mathrm{nnz}(A_{:,k})\,\mathrm{nnz}(B_{k,:})$ (the "flops" of the sparse product). For uniformly random patterns with density d this is $\approx d^2n^3$ and the expected density of C is $1 - (1 - d^2)^n$.

Floating-point error. For a sum of $m \leq n$ products, any evaluation order gives $|\hat{c} - c| \leq \gamma_m \sum_k |a_{ik}b_{kj}|$ with $\gamma_m = mu/(1 - mu)$ and $u = 2^{-53}$ [9, 10]. Because all entries are non-negative, $\sum_k |a_{ik}b_{kj}| = c_{ij}$, so two evaluation orders differ by at most $2\gamma_n$ in relative terms (triangle inequality); this is the acceptance tolerance used throughout (Section 3.8).

Benchmarking practice. The protocol follows common recommendations: central value and spread over repeated runs, warm-up separated from steady state, an explicit timing boundary, and a full description of the environment [11, 12].

3 Methodology

3.1 Implementations and reuse of Assignment 1

All methods are in one C file (`src/c/matmul2.c`); each kernel is a separate non-inlined function.

- **i-j-k (baseline)**: the Assignment 1 C kernel *unchanged* (scalar accumulator, one contiguous row-major block per matrix) [1].
- **i-k-j**: for each i, zero the row $C_{i,:}$, then for each k add $a_{ik}B_{k,:}$ to it.
- **blocked**: tiles of $b \times b$ in the order ii, kk, jj with i-k-j inside a tile; $b = 96$ (Section 3.6); partial tiles at the border.
- **csr**: own implementation of CSR×CSR→CSR with Gustavson's algorithm and a dense accumulator; the columns of every output row are sorted (insertion sort for short rows, `qsort` otherwise; a flag scan when more than $n/16$ columns are touched) so that C is canonical CSR. The output arrays grow by doubling (`realloc`). Inputs are dense files converted to CSR by own code (*csr*), or CSR files (*csrfile*, used for the sparse-only scaling runs).

No multiplication library is used in any kernel. NumPy and SciPy appear only outside the timed regions (input generation and validation). A smoke test of the driver on a few matrices was run before the real campaigns; its numbers are not used.

Same arithmetic. Every c_{ij} accumulates the products $a_{ik}b_{kj}$ for k increasing, starting from 0.0, in IEEE-754 binary64 without fused multiply–add (`-ffp-contract=off`); the sparse kernel only skips products that are exactly zero (adding +0.0 to a non-negative sum changes nothing). Hence all methods should return identical bits, which is tested (H3, Section 3.8).

3.2 Inputs

Dense. The uniform $[0, 1)$ matrices of Assignment 1: raw little-endian binary64 files from `numpy.random.default_rng([20261012, n, w])` ($w = 0$ for A, 1 for B). For every size used in both assignments the SHA-256 digest equals the one of Assignment 1 (checked by `scripts/gen_inputs.py`), i.e. the dataset is reused byte for byte. **Sparse.** Density d is the percentage of *nonzero* entries, sparsity $= 100 - d$ percent of zeros. Declared levels $d \in \{0.1, 1, 5, 10, 20, 30, 50, 70, 90\}\%$ (sparsity 99.9 to 10%), sizes $n \in \{500, 1000, 2000\}$ and two structures: *random* (each row receives $k \sim \text{Binomial}(n, d)$ nonzeros at distinct, uniformly chosen columns) and *banded* (a fully populated band centred on the diagonal, clipped at the border, whose width is chosen so that the number of entries is closest to dn^2). Nonzero values are $1 - u$, $u \sim U[0, 1)$, i.e. in $(0, 1]$. Seeds: `default_rng([20261012, n, w, s, 10d])` with $s = 1$ (random) or 2 (banded). The achieved densities and the number of nonzeros are stored in `data/manifest.json` and shown in the tables. The same logical matrix exists as a dense file (dense methods and *csr*) and as a CSR file. For the scaling experiment only CSR files exist, for $d = 0.1\%$ and 1% (random).

3.3 Environment

One virtual machine, one process at a time, nothing else running except the driver (it polls the child every 0.5 s) and, outside the timed regions, the validation of the previous run. Table 1 lists the environment. The virtual machine is of the same class as in Assignment 1, but it is a new session (different kernel build), so the baseline was *re-measured* and never taken from Assignment 1. All kernels are single-threaded; no library creates threads inside them (thread count = 1 in every row of the CSV files). Processes are not pinned and the frequency governor is not visible.

Item	Value
CPU	Intel(R) Xeon(R) Processor @ 2.80GHz, 2 vCPU (KVM guest), single thread used
Caches	L1d 32 KiB, L2 1 MiB per core, L3 33 MiB; 64 B lines
SIMD flags	SSE4.2, AVX, AVX2, AVX-512F, FMA (available; not used at `-O2`)
RAM / swap	7.8 GiB / none
OS / kernel	Ubuntu 24.04.5 LTS, kernel 6.18.44-fc-v153
Compiler	gcc 13.3.0 (Ubuntu 13.3.0-6ubuntu2 24.04.1)
Primary flags	`-O2 -std=c11 -ffp-contract=off`
Python / packages	CPython 3.13.16; NumPy 2.5.3, SciPy 1.18.1 (outside timed regions)
Threads	1 in every kernel; processes not pinned; frequency governor not visible

Table 1: Hardware and software environment.

3.4 Fixed settings and timing boundary

Fixed for all comparisons: binary64, inputs, single thread, one process per configuration, monotonic timer (`clock_gettime(CLOCK_MONOTONIC)`), and `gcc -O2 -std=c11 -ffp-contract=off` (no `-march=native`, no `-ffast-math`). Other compiler options are only used in the separate supplementary experiment of Section 3.9.

The timer measures the multiplication kernel for every method, with one rule: *the kernel reads its two operands and defines every element of its output.* Allocation of the dense C and touching its pages happen before the timer; the zero-fill that i-k-j and blocked need is *inside* the kernel (it is $O(n^2)$); the baseline writes each element once and needs none. The CSR kernel allocates its workspace and its output arrays *inside* the timed region because the output size is not known in advance. Outside the timer: reading input files, freeing the output, the checksum and the dump of the result. **Conversion is measured separately**: in every repetition of a *csr* run the dense→CSR conversion of A and B is timed on its own (`conv_s`); "kernel + conversion" is the sum of the two non-overlapping intervals. The result of every multiplication is consumed (checksum after each sample; the last product is dumped and verified).

3.5 Repetitions, statistics and budgets

Each configuration runs in its own process: warm-up samples (excluded from the statistics, kept in the CSV) followed by measured samples, by the estimated time $\hat{t}$ of one multiplication: $\hat{t} \leq 1\,\text{s}$: 3 warm-up, 10 measured; $\leq 30\,\text{s}$: 1, 5; $\leq 120\,\text{s}$: 0, 3; else 0, 2. For $\hat{t} < 50\,\text{ms}$ a batch of $\lceil 0.1\,\text{s}/\hat{t} \rceil$ multiplications is timed and divided by the batch. Reported: **median** and **IQR** ($Q_3 - Q_1$); all raw samples are in `results/raw_measurements.csv`. Configurations are interleaved by size (for each n every method) so that drift of the machine affects all methods alike. **Budgets** (declared before the large runs): at most **300 s** per timed sample and **4 GiB** per process (polled RSS plus an address-space cap of 4.25 GiB, so that an allocation failure ends the run cleanly); a violation is recorded as *timeout* or *memory failure*, never with an invented time. The driver does not attempt a configuration whose predicted time exceeds $3 \times 300\,\text{s}$ (or predicted memory $3 \times 4\,\text{GiB}$) and stops a series after its first failure. The *largest feasible* size (all repetitions completed and validated) and the *largest attempted* size are reported separately.

Declared size sequences. Dense (Part A): $n \in \{100, 250, 500, 512, 750, 1000, 1024, 1250, 2000, 2048, 3000, 4000, 5000, 6000, 8000\}$, i.e. the starting examples 100 and 1000, pairs of a power of two and a nearby size (500/512, 1000/1024, 2000/2048) because Assignment 1 found spikes at powers of two, and larger sizes up to the budget. Sparse matched comparison (Part B): $n \in \{500, 1000, 2000\}$. Sparse scaling: $n \in \{2000, 4000, 8000, 16000, 32000, 64000, 128000\}$ for $d = 0.1\%$ and $\{2000, \ldots, 32000\}$ for $d = 1\%$, until the budget is reached.

3.6 Tile size

The tile size was chosen by a sweep $b \in \{8, 16, 24, 32, 48, 64, 96, 128, 192, 256, 384\}$ of the blocked method at $n = 1500$, a size that is *not* part of the comparison, in two independent processes; the rule fixed in advance was "smallest mean of the two medians". The result is $b = 96$ (Section 4.2); the landscape turned out to be flat, so the choice is not critical.

3.7 Memory metric

Peak resident set size of the whole process (`VmHWM` in `/proc/self/status`, read by the program before it exits), which includes the runtime, the input matrices and any temporary buffers (the *csr* method keeps the dense inputs resident to convert them in every repetition). `ru_maxrss` from `wait4` is stored as a cross-check but is unreliable for small runs. RSS is not storage: the model lines are estimates ($24n^2$ bytes dense; 12 bytes per nonzero plus $8(n+1)$ per CSR matrix), and RSS counts only pages touched, in units of one page.

3.8 Correctness

`scripts/test_correctness.py` (run before any benchmark, `results/correctness_tests.csv`) checks the dense methods and the sparse method on cases with known answers (scalar, 2×2 non-commutative, hand-computed 3×3, zero and identity matrices on both sides, all-ones, integer matrices – *exact* equality, no rounding because all values are small integers), on random matrices against NumPy (relative tolerance $2\gamma_n$, absolute tolerance 0; entries that must be exactly zero are required to be exactly zero), and on sparse edge cases (empty matrix, identity, diagonal, empty row and column, fully dense) and random and banded matrices against SciPy (identical nonzero pattern, same tolerance). It also requires bit-for-bit equality of all dense methods and 13 tile sizes (from 1 to larger than n, including sizes that do not divide n), bit-for-bit equality between the densified sparse result and the dense baseline, sorted column indices, *csr* = *csrfile*, and repeated runs (warm-up and batching) into the same buffers to give identical checksums. A mutation check was also run: a kernel without its zero-fill was at first *not* detected (fresh buffers are already zero), which led to adding the repeated-run tests above, after which it is detected. During the benchmark every run dumps its last product and the driver compares it with NumPy (dense) or SciPy (sparse), with the same tolerance, plus the checksum (tolerance γ_{n^2+2n}) and, for the sparse method, 64 spot-check rows (nonzero count and row sum); for the large scaling runs, whose output may be gigabytes, only the spot-check rows are verified.

3.9 Supplementary experiments (kept separate from the controlled comparison)

1. **Compiler options** (Section 4.2): the three dense methods built with `-O2` (primary), `-O2 -funroll-loops`, `-O3` and `-O3 -march=native` (always `-ffp-contract=off`) at $n \in \{1000, 2000\}$. It was added after the compiler's vectorisation report showed that `-O2` does not vectorise any kernel (packed versus scalar multiply instructions counted in the object code, `results/vectorization_evidence.csv`); it separates the effect of SIMD from the effect of the loop transformations.
2. **Between-process variability** (Section 4.2): the dense methods at $n = 1000$ in six independent processes.
3. **Value independence** of the dense methods: the same dense methods are run on the matched sparse-valued matrices (zeros stored explicitly) to check that their time does not depend on the values.

4 Results

All times are medians of the measured samples (IQR in parentheses where shown); the full data are in `results/`. Every run listed here passed its validation (all 310 completed process runs have `correctness = pass`; the three dense timeouts and the five *not attempted* rows have no result to validate), and all 69 groups of runs of the same input produced the same SHA-256 of the dense-form product regardless of method or tile size (H3 supported).

4.1 Part A: dense methods

n	i-j-k	i-k-j	blocked	S_{ikj}	S_{blk}	reps
100	0.00112 (0.000223)	0.000663 (0.0000583)	0.000768 (0.0000516)	1.69	1.46	10/10/10
250	0.0176 (0.00167)	0.0107 (0.00248)	0.0108 (0.00147)	1.64	1.63	10/10/10
500	0.162 (0.0160)	0.112 (0.0296)	0.106 (0.0485)	1.45	1.53	10/10/10
512	0.289 (0.0228)	0.0908 (0.00577)	0.0990 (0.0212)	3.18	2.91	10/10/10
750	0.537 (0.0248)	0.270 (0.0179)	0.285 (0.0104)	1.99	1.88	5/10/10
1000	1.60 (0.0989)	0.690 (0.0320)	0.695 (0.0955)	2.32	2.30	5/10/10
1024	3.74 (0.0210)	0.797 (0.0567)	0.793 (0.112)	4.69	4.71	5/10/10
1250	6.50 (0.327)	1.64 (0.0453)	1.48 (0.0796)	3.96	4.39	5/5/5
2000	37.1 (0.333)	9.95 (0.186)	6.00 (0.132)	3.73	6.18	3/5/5
2048	68.4 (4.34)	9.96 (0.191)	6.91 (0.499)	6.87	9.89	3/5/5
3000	190 (0.0805)	32.6 (0.739)	21.1 (0.0891)	5.83	8.99	2/3/5
4000	*timeout*	71.3 (2.70)	45.4 (1.71)	–	–	-/3/3
5000	*n/a*	140 (3.00)	92.8 (1.26)	–	–	-/2/3
6000	*n/a*	253 (3.55)	183 (1.61)	–	–	-/2/2
8000	*n/a*	*timeout*	*timeout*	–	–	-/-/-

Table 2: Median time of one multiplication in seconds (IQR in parentheses) of the three dense methods in C, and speed-up over the baseline, $S = t_{ijk}/t$. Reps = number of measured samples for i-j-k / i-k-j / blocked. Sizes 4000–6000 (i-k-j, blocked only) are listed in Table 4.

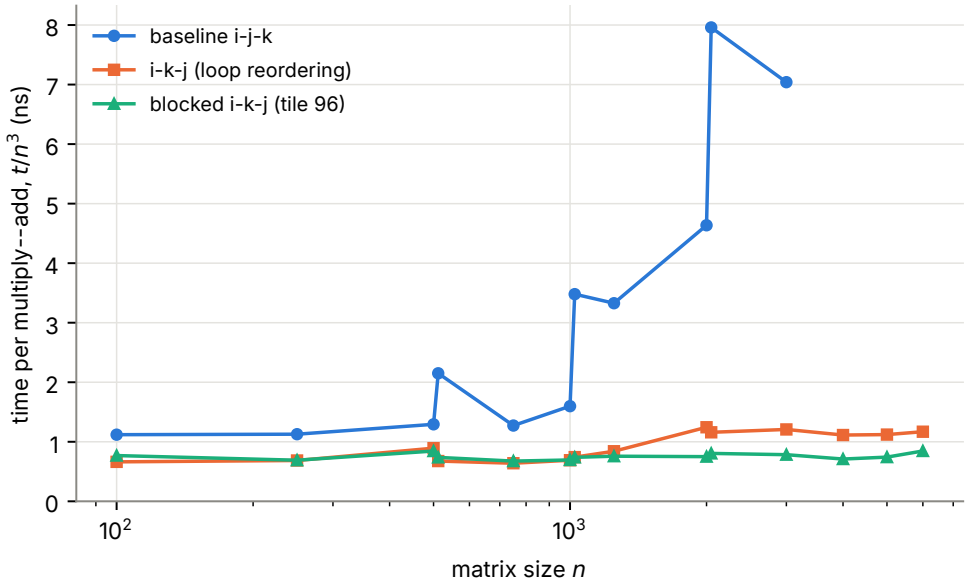


Figure 1: Time per multiply–add, t/n^3, against n (median; the IQR is smaller than the markers except at a few sizes, see Table 2).

Loop reordering and blocking. The baseline costs 1.1–1.6 ns per multiply–add for $n \le 1000$ except at $n = 512$ (2.15 ns), and then rises to 3.5 ns at 1024, 3.3 at 1250, 4.6 at 2000, 8.0 at 2048 and 7.0 at 3000 (Figure 1), as in Assignment 1. i-k-j costs 0.64–0.89 ns up to $n = 1250$ and 1.1–1.24 ns from $n = 2000$; it shows *no* spike at 512 or 1024. The blocked method stays between 0.68 and 0.85 ns at *all* sizes up to 6000. The speed-up of i-k-j over the baseline is 1.45–1.69× for $n \le 500$, 2.0–2.3× at 750 and 1000, and 3.7–6.9× for $n \ge 1024$ (Figure 2); for the blocked method it is 9.9× at 2048 and 9.0× at 3000. The speed-ups are not monotonic in n because the *baseline* is the irregular series: the largest values (3.2× at 512, 4.7× at 1024, 6.9× and 9.9× at 2048) coincide with sizes where the baseline itself is anomalously slow, so they partly measure that anomaly. The blocked method is not faster than i-k-j for $n \le 1000$ (1.00× at 1000) and gains 1.11× at 1250, 1.66× at 2000, 1.44× at 2048, 1.54× at 3000, 1.57× at 4000, 1.51× at 5000 and 1.38× at 6000.

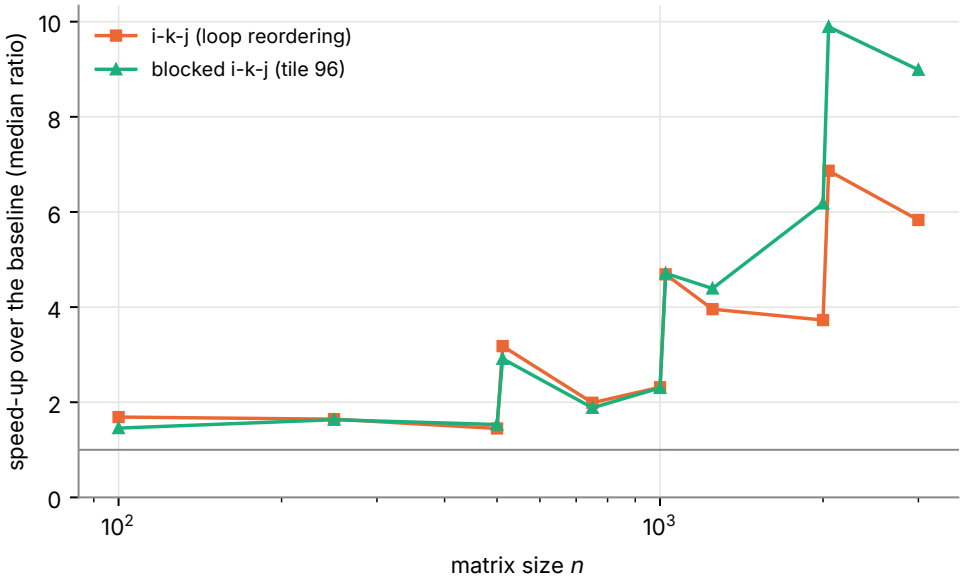


Figure 2: Speed-up over the i-j-k baseline (median ratio). The baseline is measured with only 2–5 samples for $n \geq 750$.

Empirical exponents. Fitting $t \propto n^k$ by least squares in log–log (Table 3; $\pm$ is the 95% confidence interval of the slope, few points, so it is rough): the blocked method has $k = 3.04 \pm 0.07$ over all feasible $n \geq 1000$ (nine sizes), i-k-j 3.26 ± 0.19, and the baseline 4.1 ± 1.0 over 1000–3000 (six points that include the spikes).

Method	$n = 100$–500	$n = 1000$–3000	$n \geq 1000$ (all feasible)
baseline i-j-k	3.09 ± 0.68 (3)	4.11 ± 0.97 (6)	4.11 ± 0.97 (6)
i-k-j (loop reordering)	3.18 ± 1.23 (3)	3.56 ± 0.28 (6)	3.26 ± 0.19 (9)
blocked i-k-j (tile 96)	3.05 ± 1.45 (3)	3.09 ± 0.10 (6)	3.04 ± 0.07 (9)

Table 3: Fitted exponent k of $t \propto n^k$ with the 95% CI of the slope and the number of points.

Method	Largest feasible n	Largest attempted n	Failures (limit 300 s)	Time at largest ok (s)	Reps	Not attempted
baseline i-j-k	3000	4000	4000: timeout	190	2	5000, 6000, 8000
i-k-j (loop reordering)	6000	8000	8000: timeout	253	2	none
blocked i-k-j (tile 96)	6000	8000	8000: timeout	183	2	none

Table 4: Largest feasible and largest attempted size under the budgets (300 s per sample, 4 GiB). *Not attempted*: skipped after an earlier timeout of the same series.

Largest feasible size, budget and memory. The baseline completes $n = 3000$ (190 s) and times out at 4000; i-k-j and blocked complete 6000 (253 s and 183 s, two samples each) and time out at 8000. All limits are set by *time*, not by memory: the largest dense run used 826 MiB (Table 5). Peak RSS grows by 24.00 bytes per n^2 in all three methods (three `float64` matrices, H6) above a baseline of about 2 MiB, and equals the $24n^2$ model within 0.3% at the largest size.

Method	Peak RSS at $n = 100$ (MiB)	Growth (bytes per n^2, $n \geq 1000$)	Largest n	Peak RSS there (MiB)	$24n^2$ model (MiB)
baseline i-j-k	2.00	24.00	3000	207.8	206.0
i-k-j (loop reordering)	2.00	24.00	6000	825.8	824.0
blocked i-k-j (tile 96)	2.00	24.00	6000	825.8	824.0

Table 5: Peak resident memory of the dense methods (`VmHWM`) and the model $24n^2$ bytes.

Bottleneck. At $n \geq 2000$ the baseline spends 4.6–8.0 ns per multiply–add, 4–12 times the 0.64–0.89 ns of the unit-stride methods, i.e. most of its time is memory access and not arithmetic. For the unit-stride methods the cost rises from about 0.7 to 1.1–1.2 ns for i-k-j when the matrices no longer fit in the caches

($n \geq 2000$: B alone is 32 MB, much larger than the 1 MiB L2), while blocking holds 0.7–0.85 ns. This is consistent with a cache-capacity effect but, since no hardware counters are available in the virtual machine, it is an *interpretation*, not a measurement.

4.2 Tile size, compiler options and variability (supplementary, kept separate)

Tile b	Process 1 (s)	Process 2 (s)	Mean (s)	$3 \cdot 8b^2$ (KiB)
8	2.76	2.98	2.87	1.50
16	2.54	2.77	2.65	6.00
24	2.50	2.97	2.73	13.5
32	2.54	2.72	2.63	24.0
48	2.76	2.75	2.76	54.0
64	2.50	2.63	2.56	96.0
96	2.47	2.53	**2.50**	216
128	2.79	2.40	2.60	384
192	2.83	2.49	2.66	864
256	2.93	2.49	2.71	1536
384	2.92	2.74	2.83	3456

Table 6: Tile-size sweep of the blocked method at $n = 1500$ (seconds, median of two independent processes and their mean). Best tile in bold.

The mean time is lowest at $b = 96$ (2.50 s), but the whole range $b = 16$–256 lies within 2.50–2.76 s ($\leq 10\%$) and the two processes disagree by up to 0.5 s at the same tile size ($b = 24$: 2.50 versus 2.97 s); $b = 8$ and $b = 384$ are 13–15% slower. The landscape is therefore flat and $b = 96$ is a reasonable but not a uniquely optimal choice (Figure 3).

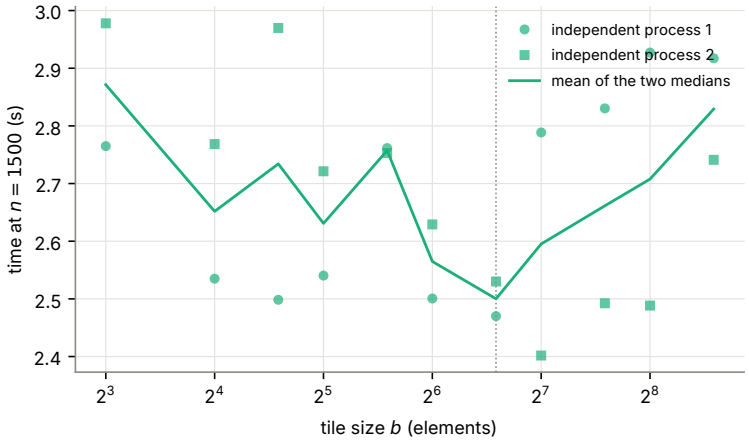


Figure 3: Blocked method at $n = 1500$ against the tile size, two processes.

Between-process variability. Repeating the same configuration at $n = 1000$ in six independent processes (Table 7) gives medians that differ by 14% (i-k-j), 13% (blocked) and 35% (baseline) from the fastest to the slowest process, which is of the same size as, or larger than, the within-process IQR (9–14% of the median). Differences between methods or settings below roughly 15% must not be read as real; for the baseline, 35%.

Method	Proc.	P1 (s)	P2 (s)	P3 (s)	P4 (s)	P5 (s)	P6 (s)	Spread (%)	Within IQR (%)
baseline i-j-k	6	1.60	1.65	2.12	1.75	1.65	1.54	35.1	9.23
i-k-j (loop reordering)	6	0.690	0.724	0.753	0.795	0.738	0.728	14.3	11.1
blocked i-k-j (tile 96)	6	0.695	0.758	0.775	0.789	0.734	0.752	12.5	14.0

Table 7: Median time at $n = 1000$ in six independent processes; spread $= (\max - \min)/\min$.

n	method	-O2 (s)	-O2 -funroll-loops	-O3	-O3 -march=native
1000	blocked	0.865	0.495 (1.75×)	0.242 (3.57×)	0.232 (3.73×)
1000	ijk	1.89	1.60 (1.18×)	1.69 (1.11×)	1.58 (1.19×)
1000	ikj	0.833	0.492 (1.69×)	0.341 (2.44×)	0.283 (2.94×)
2000	blocked	5.99	4.02 (1.49×)	2.59 (2.31×)	1.83 (3.27×)
2000	ijk	36.6	33.8 (1.08×)	37.3 (0.98×)	36.1 (1.02×)
2000	ikj	9.08	8.67 (1.05×)	6.20 (1.46×)	5.84 (1.55×)

Table 8: Median time (s) of each method with other compiler options (in parentheses, speed-up over the same method at `-O2` in the same experiment; always `-ffp-contract=off`).

Compiler options (Section 3.9). At `-O2` gcc does not vectorise any kernel (no packed multiplication in the object code, `results/vectorization_evidence.csv`); at `-O3` it emits packed multiplications for i-k-j and blocked (128-bit registers; 256-bit with `-march=native`) and a single one for the baseline, whose inner loop reads a column of B with a stride, and its time does not change. The effect is large: at $n = 1000$ the blocked kernel at `-O3` is 3.6× faster than at `-O2`, and at $n = 2000$ `-O3 -march=native` makes blocked 3.3× and i-k-j 1.55× faster, while the baseline does not change (0.98–1.02×; the 1.08× of unrolling is below the variability). The `-O2` values of this table (0.83/0.87/1.89 s at $n = 1000$) are from a different process than those of Table 2 (0.69/0.70/1.60 s), an instance of the variability above. The headline comparison of this report uses `-O2` for all methods; a compiler flag is therefore a larger optimisation than blocking at $n = 1000$, and at $n = 2000$ it is of the same order.

4.3 Part B: sparse matrices

Inputs. Table 9 (and the same tables for $n = 500$ and 1000 in the materials) lists, for each density, the achieved density of the inputs, the density of the product C, the CSR kernel time, the separately timed dense→CSR conversion (both A and B), the time of the best dense method of the same cell and of the baseline, and the speed-ups of the CSR kernel S_k and of kernel plus conversion S_t over the best dense method. Dense times of the same method vary between cells only within the variability above (0.69–0.82 s for i-k-j at $n = 1000$, 8.4–10.1 s at $n = 2000$, with no trend in density): *the dense methods do not depend on the values*, which also confirms that the comparison base is the same for all densities.

Input	d (%)	actual (%)	C (%)	CSR kernel (s)	conv. (s)	best dense (s)	i-j-k (s)	S_k	S_t
random	0.100	0.0998	0.199	0.000135	0.0236	5.97	–	44235	251
	1.00	1.00	18.2	0.0203	0.0230	6.52	–	322	151
	5.00	5.00	99.3	0.137	0.0303	6.59	–	48.2	39.4
	10.0	10.0	100	0.164	0.0315	6.26	–	38.3	32.1
	20.0	20.0	100	0.446	0.0448	6.11	–	13.7	12.4
	30.0	30.0	100	1.02	0.0558	6.04	–	5.95	5.64
	50.0	50.0	100	3.15	0.0741	5.84	35.8	1.86	1.81
	70.0	70.0	100	5.64	0.0715	6.01	–	1.07	1.05
	90.0	90.0	100	9.44	0.0645	5.81	–	0.615	0.611
band	0.100	0.1000	0.150	0.0000410	0.0205	5.90	35.5	143712	287
	1.00	0.998	1.94	0.00191	0.0223	6.41	–	3358	265
	5.00	4.99	9.80	0.0222	0.0242	5.90	–	265	127
	10.0	9.99	19.4	0.0839	0.0252	6.10	–	72.7	55.9
	20.0	20.0	37.7	0.318	0.0274	5.84	–	18.4	16.9
	30.0	30.0	54.6	0.720	0.0322	6.09	–	8.45	8.09
	50.0	50.0	82.8	2.03	0.0410	5.74	–	2.83	2.77
	70.0	70.0	99.1	4.94	0.0437	6.18	–	1.25	1.24
	90.0	90.0	100	9.05	0.0486	5.81	–	0.643	0.639

Table 9: $n = 2000$: CSR×CSR versus the best dense method (blocked). d = density of the inputs (% nonzero); "actual" = measured; C = density of the product. Times in seconds; "–" = not run (baseline only at two cells). $S_k = t_{dense}/t_{kernel}$, $S_t = t_{dense}/(t_{kernel} + t_{conv})$.

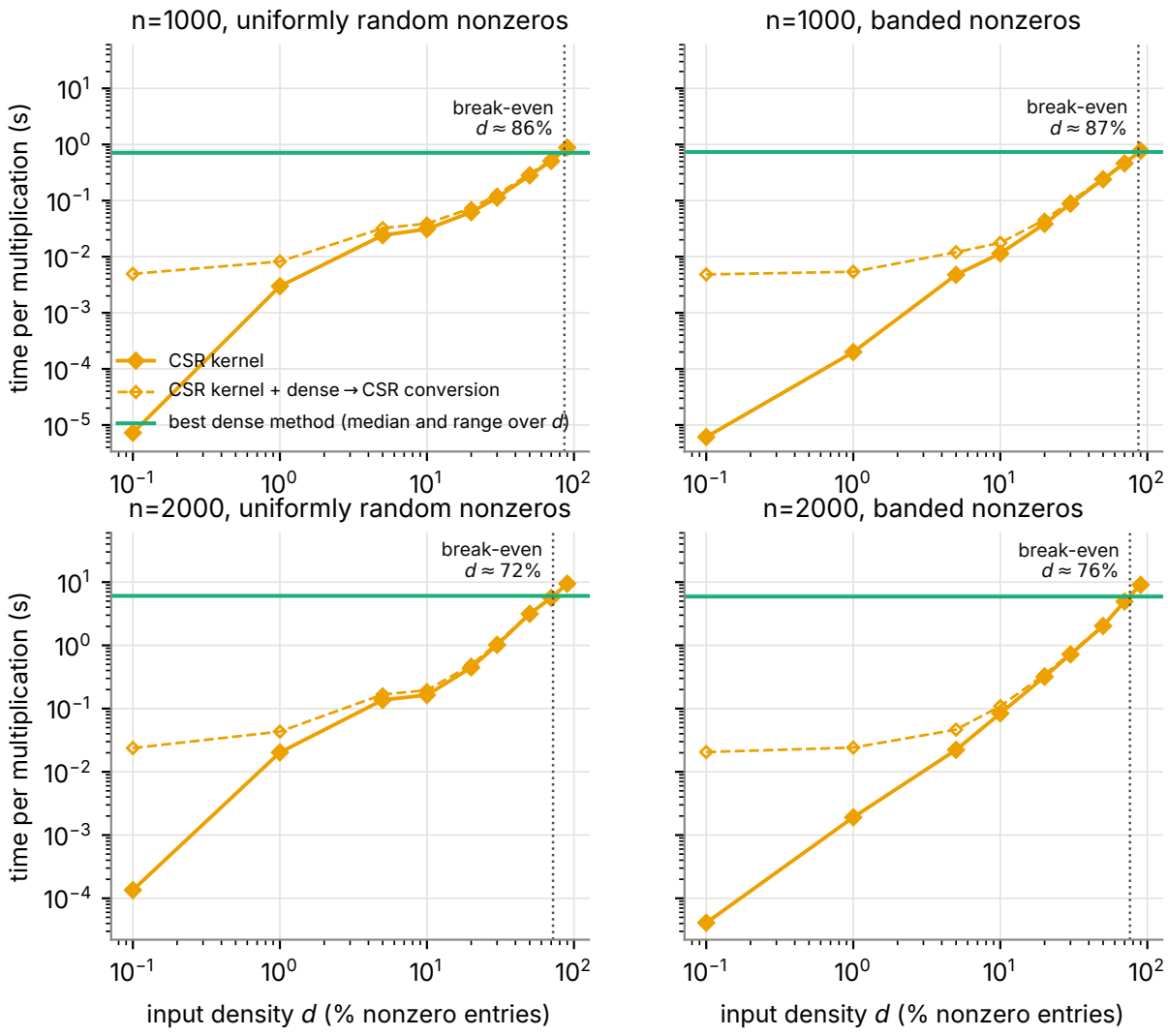


Figure 4: Time per multiplication of the CSR kernel (with and without the dense→CSR conversion) against the input density d. The dense methods do not depend on d, so only the best one is drawn: its median over the densities (line) and its range (shaded). The dotted line marks the interpolated break-even density of the kernel. All three dense methods are listed in Table 9.

Where sparse wins. At $d = 0.1\%$ and $n = 1000$ the CSR kernel takes 7.3 μs (random) and 6.1 μs (banded), against 0.69–0.75 s of the best dense method, a ratio of 10^5; at $n = 2000$ the ratios are $4 \cdot 10^4$ (random) and $1.4 \cdot 10^5$ (banded). The advantage falls steadily with density (Figure 4), is still 1.9–3.1× at $d = 50\%$ and disappears near the top of the range: the speed-up of the kernel at the largest density tested (90%) is 0.82–0.93 for $n \leq 1000$ and 0.62–0.64 for $n = 2000$; the break-even density, by log–log interpolation between the neighbouring tested densities, is 82–87% for $n = 500, 1000$ and 72–76% for $n = 2000$ (`results/summary_breakeven.csv`, kernel only; with conversion, 0.2–2 points lower). Because the ratios near 1 are within the variability (±15%), the break-even at $n \leq 1000$ is only resolved to about ±10 percentage points; the result at $n = 2000$ (0.61–0.64 at 90%) is outside that margin.

Conversion. Converting two dense matrices to CSR costs 4.8–21 ms at $n = 1000$ and 21–74 ms at $n = 2000$ (it grows with the number of nonzeros, from the minimum at $d = 0.1\%$). For $d \leq 1\%$ banded it is 92–99.9% of the end-to-end sparse time (e.g. $n = 1000$, $d = 0.1\%$: kernel 6 μs, conversion 4.8 ms), so the end-to-end advantage is 155× rather than 10^5× (H5 supported); it falls below 5% of the total for $d \geq 70\%$ at $n = 1000$ and for $d \geq 50\%$ at $n = 2000$. If the matrices are already in CSR the conversion does not exist, which is the case of the scaling runs below.

Output density and indexing. The product of random matrices fills in: at $n = 1000$, C has 0.10% of nonzeros for $d = 0.1\%$, 9.4% for $d = 1\%$, 91.7% for $d = 5\%$ and 100% from $d = 10\%$, in line with $1 - e^{-nd^2}$ (9.5%, 91.8% and 100% predicted) (Figure 5). The product of banded matrices stays banded, with density $\approx 2d$ (1.9% at $d = 1\%$, 19% at $d = 10\%$). The cost per useful product of the CSR kernel, t/flops with flops $= \sum_k \text{colcount}_A(k)\,\text{rowcount}_B(k)$ (Table 10), is 0.9–1.1 ns for banded inputs with $d \geq 10\%$ at $n = 1000$ (the same order as the dense 0.7–0.8 ns per multiply–add) but 30 ns for random inputs at $d = 1\%$ ($n = 1000$) and 25 ns at $n = 2000$, falling to 9.7 ns at 5%, 3.1 ns at 10% and 1.1 ns at 50%. In the same density (1%) random and banded inputs differ by 15× in kernel time (3.0 ms versus 0.20 ms at $n = 1000$) and by 15× in cost per flop. Hence *the density alone does not determine the performance*: the structure changes the number of useful products, the access pattern to the output workspace, the size of the output and the cost of the column sort. The mechanisms by which random access to a length-n workspace and output growth increase the cost per flop are plausible hypotheses (cache and TLB misses, sorting, `realloc`), not measured here.

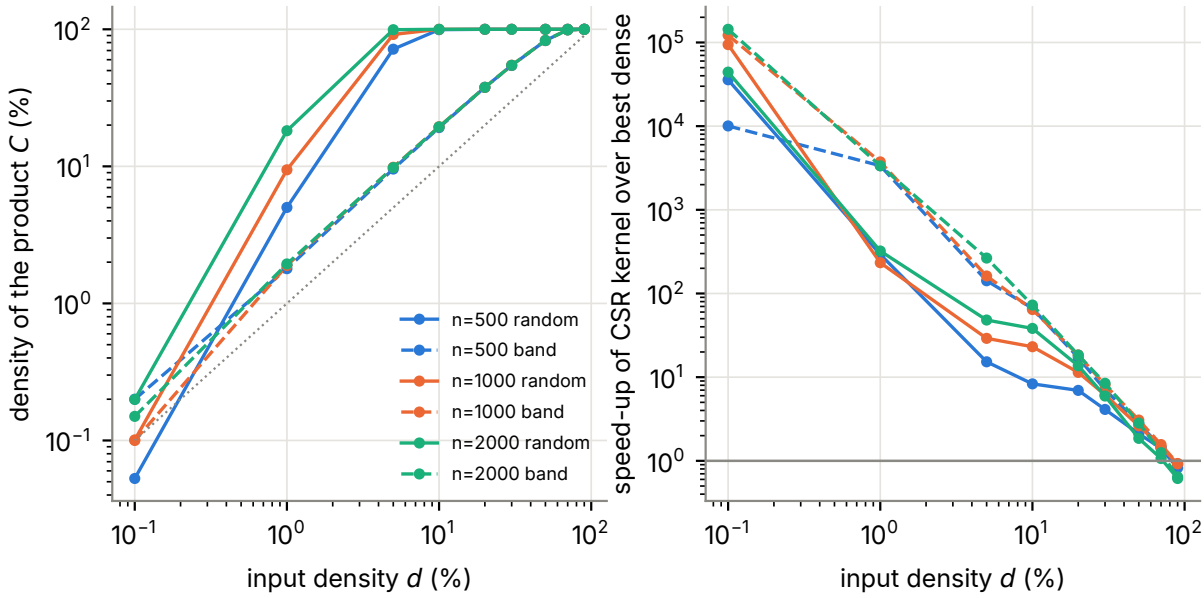


Figure 5: Left: density of the product against input density; the dotted line is $y = x$. Right: speed-up of the CSR kernel over the best dense method (horizontal line: 1).

n	input	d (%)	1	5	10	50
1000	random	ns/flop	30.0	9.66	3.13	1.12
1000	banded	ns/flop	2.00	1.87	1.13	0.93
2000	random	ns/flop	25.2	6.84	2.05	1.58
2000	banded	ns/flop	2.40	1.11	1.04	0.98

Table 10: Cost per useful product of the CSR kernel (ns per flop, flops counted from the CSR operands) at selected densities; the conversion is not included.

Memory. The sparse method *csr* holds the dense inputs (to convert them each repetition) and the CSR copies and the output; its peak RSS at $n = 2000$ is 63–78 MiB for $d \leq 1\%$ but 164–200 MiB when the product is dense, versus 93 MiB for the dense methods (Table 11). The CSR storage model 12 bytes per nonzero of A, B and C plus $24(n+1)$ matches the measured resident memory of the CSR-only runs (below) within 1% at the sizes with $n \geq 32000$ ($d = 0.1\%$) and $n \geq 8000$ ($d = 1\%$).

Input	d (%)	C (%)	CSR storage of A, B, C (MiB)	peak RSS sparse (MiB)	peak RSS dense (MiB)
random	0.100	0.199	0.229	63.1	93.3
	1.00	18.2	9.29	78.2	93.3
	5.00	99.3	50.1	166	93.3
	10.0	100	55.0	182	93.3
	20.0	100	64.1	182	93.3
	30.0	100	73.3	164	93.3
	50.0	100	91.6	200	93.3
	70.0	100	110	173	93.3
	90.0	100	128	191	93.3
band	0.100	0.150	0.206	63.0	93.3
	1.00	1.94	1.85	64.7	93.3
	5.00	9.80	9.10	71.9	93.3
	10.0	19.4	18.1	80.9	93.3
	20.0	37.7	35.6	98.4	93.3
	30.0	54.6	52.5	115	93.3
	50.0	82.8	83.8	147	93.3
	70.0	99.1	109	172	93.3
	90.0	100	128	191	93.3

Table 11: $n = 2000$: CSR storage of A, B, C (model) and peak RSS of the *csr* method (dense inputs resident) and of the dense methods.

Scaling with CSR inputs and the budget. With inputs already in CSR (random, *csrfile*) the sizes of Table 12 were run. At $d = 0.1\%$ the sequence reached $n = 64000$ (14 s, 2.9 GiB, product density 6.2%, 254 million nonzeros); at $d = 1\%$ it reached $n = 16000$ (4.3 s, 2.3 GiB, product density 80%). The next sizes ($n = 128000$ at 0.1%, $n = 32000$ at 1%) were *not attempted* because the predicted memory (47.6 and 23.8 GB) is more than three times the budget: **no sparse run hit a real failure**; the limit reported is the largest feasible size, and the next size is excluded by prediction, not by an observed failure. The time grows as $n^{3.4}$ at $d = 0.1\%$ and $n^{2.6}$ at $d = 1\%$ over the measured sizes, while the number of useful products grows as $n^{3.0}$ at fixed density, so the cost per flop is not constant (15–69 ns at 0.1%, 10–26 ns at 1%); memory is dominated by the output, which grows faster than the inputs ($\propto n^{2.5}$ at the largest sizes) because of the fill-in. For comparison, a dense $n = 64000$ product would need $24n^2 = 98$ GB (computed, not measured), and the dense methods stopped at 6000 because of time.

d (%)	n	nnz(A)	nnz(C)	C dens. (%)	time (s)	reps	peak RSS (MiB)	CSR est. (MiB)
0.100	2000	3.99e+03	7.97e+03	0.199	0.000119	10	2.023	0.2286
	4000	1.63e+04	6.52e+04	0.407	0.00192	10	4.145	1.207
	8000	6.41e+04	5.09e+05	0.796	0.0295	10	13.75	7.476
	16000	2.57e+05	4.09e+06	1.60	0.278	10	96.10	52.99
	32000	1.02e+06	3.22e+07	3.14	2.26	5	394.6	392.5
	64000	4.1e+06	2.54e+08	6.20	14.0	5	3004	3002
	128000	–	–	–	*not attempted*	–	–	–
1.00	2000	4e+04	7.28e+05	18.2	0.0205	10	17.21	9.292
	4000	1.6e+05	5.26e+06	32.9	0.109	10	65.84	64.00
	8000	6.39e+05	3.52e+07	55.1	0.811	5	420.0	418.1
	16000	2.56e+06	2.04e+08	79.8	4.29	5	2398	2396
	32000	–	–	–	*not attempted*	–	–	–

Table 12: Scaling of the CSR kernel with CSR inputs (random, $d = 0.1\%$ and 1%). Time = median of the kernel (conversion not applicable); peak RSS measured; CSR est. $= 12(\mathrm{nnz}_A + \mathrm{nnz}_B + \mathrm{nnz}_C) + 24(n + 1)$ bytes.

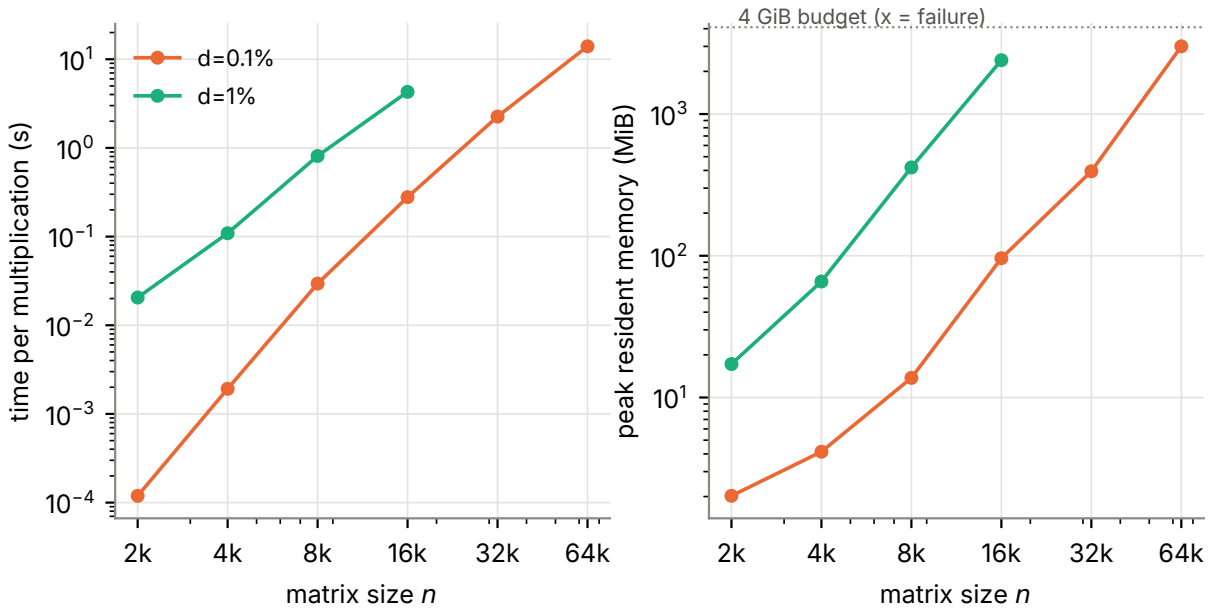


Figure 6: Time and peak memory of the CSR kernel against n with CSR inputs. The dotted line is the 4 GiB budget; no run failed.

4.4 Correctness tests

Group of tests	Checks	Passed
Dense: known answers (scalar, 2×2, 3×3, zero, identity, all-ones, integer)	117	117
Dense: random matrices vs NumPy ($n = 5, \ldots, 129$)	78	78
Dense: bit-for-bit equality of all methods and 13 tile sizes	13	13
Dense: repeated runs give identical checksums	7	7
Sparse: edge cases (empty, identity, diagonal, empty row/column, 1×1, fully dense)	64	64
Sparse: random and banded vs SciPy (pattern, values), CSR sorted, csr=csrfile	72	72
Sparse: densified result bit-for-bit equal to the dense methods	24	24
Sparse: conversion, spot-check rows, repeated runs	2	2
Total	**377**	**377**

Table 13: Results of the correctness suite (run before the benchmarks and again before submission).

5 Discussion

5.1 Answers to the research questions

Q-A (dense optimisations). With identical inputs, arithmetic, timing boundary and a single thread, reordering the loops to i-k-j makes the C baseline 1.5–1.7× faster for $n \leq 500$, 2–2.3× at $n = 750$–1000 and 3.7–6.9× for $n \geq 1024$; blocking with $b = 96$ adds nothing up to $n = 1000$ and a further 1.4–1.7× over i-k-j for $n \geq 2000$, giving up to 9.9× over the baseline at $n = 2048$ (Table 2, Figure 2). The optimised kernels cost 0.64–0.89 ns (i-k-j, $n \leq 1250$) or 0.68–0.85 ns (blocked, all sizes) per multiply–add and keep a near-cubic growth ($k = 3.04 \pm 0.07$ for blocked), whereas the baseline's cost per multiply–add grows from 1.1 to 8.0 ns. As a consequence the largest feasible size under the same budget moves from 3000 to 6000. The speed-up numbers are bounded by the baseline's irregular behaviour (spikes at 512 and 1024): they should be read as "at these sizes" and not as a smooth law.

Q-B (sparse versus dense). For inputs with 0.1–50% nonzeros the own CSR×CSR kernel is faster than the best dense method on the same matrices, by $10^5\times$ at $d = 0.1\%$ (kernel only), $2 \cdot 10^2$–$4 \cdot 10^3\times$ at 1% and 2–3× at 50%; it is slower from a break-even density of about 72–87% (precisely: 72–76% at $n = 2000$; 82–87% at $n = 500$ and 1000, resolved to about ±10 points). The end-to-end advantage of the whole

pipeline starting from dense matrices is limited by the dense→CSR conversion ($O(n^2)$ and independent of d to first order): at $n = 1000$, $d = 0.1\%$ it is 155× instead of 10^5×. And the product of random sparse matrices is dense long before the inputs are: at $n = 1000$, $d = 5\%$ gives a 92%-dense C, and then the cost per useful product (9.7 ns at 5%, 30 ns at 1%) is 14–43× that of a dense multiply–add (0.7 ns; Table 10). *Where sparse helps*: very sparse inputs, banded or otherwise structured inputs whose product stays sparse, and inputs that are already stored in CSR. *Where it stops helping*: dense outputs, inputs above ≈ 70–80% density, and workloads that must convert from dense each time.

Separating the effects. The optimisation effect (Part A) was obtained with dense inputs, where the number of operations is fixed at n^3: changing the loop order or blocking changed the time by up to 9.9× and nothing else. The storage and structure effect (Part B) is of a different kind: it changes the *number* of operations (from n^3 to $\approx d^2n^3$ useful products for random inputs), by up to 10^5×, while the time per operation *increases* (1 to 30 ns per product instead of 0.7 ns). The two are not additive: here the comparator in Part B is the best optimised dense method, not the baseline; against the baseline all sparse speed-ups would be about 2× ($n = 1000$) to 6× ($n = 2000$) larger (baseline column of the tables). Also the third factor, the *compiler*, matters: with `-O3 -march=native` the dense blocked kernel became 3.3× faster at $n = 2000$, which would move the break-even density of Part B down (the sparse kernel was not recompiled in the same comparison, so this is only an expectation).

Percentage of zeros is not enough. At the same $d = 1\%$ and $n = 1000$, banded inputs run 15× faster than random ones, produce a product 5× sparser (1.9% versus 9.4%), and have 15× lower cost per useful product. A statement such as "a matrix with 99% zeros is fast" is therefore false in general: it depends on the pattern, on the product's fill-in, on the format, on whether conversion is needed and on the implementation of the kernel.

Why a tile of 96 works although it does not fit in L1. Three 96×96 tiles occupy 216 KiB, far more than the 32 KiB L1 data cache, yet $b = 96$ was not slower than $b = 32$ (which fits; 2.50 versus 2.63 s, within the variability). The three-tiles-in-L1 criterion of Section 2 is conservative for this loop order: inside a tile the i-k-j order only needs one row of the C tile and one row of the B tile at a time (768 bytes each) in L1, while the B tile (72 KiB) is reused from L2 for every row i and is read with unit stride, a pattern the hardware prefetchers predict well. This explanation is a hypothesis; without hardware counters it was not measured.

5.2 Hypotheses

	Verdict	Evidence
H1	supported	i-k-j is 1.45–6.9× faster than i-j-k at every size; gain grows with n but not monotonically; no spikes at 512/1024.
H2	partly supported	No gain of blocking for $n \leq 1000$ (as expected); a gain of 1.38–1.66× for $n \geq 2000$. The predicted bound "$\lesssim 1.5\times$" is exceeded at $n = 2000$ (1.66×) and respected elsewhere.
H3	supported	identical SHA-256 of C in all 69 groups; all tile sizes tested bit-for-bit equal.
H4	supported, with a precise break-even	10^5× at $d = 0.1\%$ down to 0.6–0.9× at 90%; break-even 72–87%; random products fill in as $1 - e^{-nd^2}$, banded ones stay banded.
H5	supported	conversion is 92–99.9% of the end-to-end time for banded inputs with $d \leq 1\%$; random $d = 1\%$: 53–82%.
H6	supported	dense: 24.00 bytes per n^2; CSR: model within 1% of the measured RSS at the largest scaling sizes.

Table 14: Predictions declared in the introduction against the results.

5.3 Strength of the evidence

- **Strong:** the ordering baseline $\ll$ i-k-j $\lesssim$ blocked for $n \geq 2000$ (ratios $> 3\times$ against samples whose IQR is at most 14% of the median); the correctness of all results; the memory formulas; the orders of magnitude of the sparse advantage at low density, and the fact that it is reversed at 90% for $n = 2000$.

- **Moderate:** the break-even densities for $n \leq 1000$ (the speed-up is within $\pm 15\%$ of 1 over the last two densities); exponents (few points); the choice $b = 96$ (flat landscape).
- **Weak or hypothesis:** all explanations in terms of caches, TLB, SIMD units or `realloc`; they are consistent with the data (e.g. the vectorisation evidence and the compiler experiment for SIMD) but no hardware counters were available. For the baseline's spikes at powers of two a cache-associativity conflict is the usual explanation [7, 8]; this study neither tests nor excludes it.

5.4 Limitations

- **One machine.** A virtual machine with 2 vCPUs, 8 GiB, shared host, unpinned, no visible frequency governor. Between-process variability reaches 13–35% at $n = 1000$; with 2–5 samples at large n the medians are less certain than the IQR suggests. Results are *not* from the author's laptop and would differ in absolute terms there.
- **No CPU pinning.** Pinning each process to one logical CPU (`taskset`) could reduce the between-process noise and will be used in Assignment 3 (threads); in a virtual machine it fixes the process to a vCPU, not to a physical core, so it can reduce but not remove the variability.
- **Few samples at the largest sizes** (budget rule): baseline $n = 3000$ has 2 samples; 4000–6000 have 2–3; the sparse scaling has 5.
- **Implementation scope.** One sparse format (CSR) and one algorithm (Gustavson with a dense accumulator); no comparison with a library (SciPy was used only to validate), no CSC/COO, no tuned sort. A faster sparse kernel would move the break-even; a library dense kernel (BLAS) would very likely be faster than all three dense methods and would move it down.
- **Inputs.** Two structures only (random and banded) and positive values; real matrices (power-law degree, block structure) may behave differently. Matched comparisons only up to $n = 2000$; the baseline is run on only two cells at $n = 2000$.
- **Exploratory decisions.** A pilot at $n = 1500$ and a smoke test at $n = 500$ were seen before the hypotheses were fixed; the densities 70% and 90%, the compiler experiment and the variability experiment were added after those looks. The tile was chosen on the same machine at a size outside the comparison.
- **Scaling runs** use CSR files, so they exclude conversion by design, and only random patterns.

6 Conclusions

1. On dense $n \times n$ `float64` matrices in sequential C at `-O2`, the i-j-k baseline loses to i-k-j by 1.5× to 6.9×, and to the blocked method ($b = 96$) by up to 9.9×; blocking only pays beyond $n \approx 1250$, where it adds 1.4–1.7× over i-k-j. The largest feasible size within 300 s doubles, from 3000 to 6000. Results are bit-identical.
2. Cost per multiply–add: 0.64–0.89 ns (i-k-j) and 0.68–0.85 ns (blocked) against 1.1–8.0 ns (baseline); exponent 3.04 ± 0.07 (blocked).
3. The own CSR×CSR kernel is 10^2–10^5× faster than the best dense method for $d \leq 1\%$, still 2–3× at 50%, and slower above a break-even density of about 70–85% on this machine; a dense→CSR conversion removes most of the advantage at high sparsity, and random products become dense after a few percent of input density.
4. The percentage of zeros alone does not predict performance: at 1%, banded inputs are 15× faster than random ones.
5. With CSR inputs, $n = 64000$ ($d = 0.1\%$) and $n = 16000$ ($d = 1\%$) are feasible in 14 s and 4.3 s within 3 GiB; the next sizes were excluded by predicted memory (> 12 GiB), and no run failed. Dense matrices of $n = 64000$ would need 98 GB.
6. A compiler flag (vectorisation) had an effect comparable to or larger than the algorithmic changes in the dense part (3.3× for the blocked kernel at $n = 2000$); this should be kept in mind when the next assignment adds vectorisation and parallelism.

7 Use of generative AI

In line with the course policy, the use of AI is disclosed: the tool was **Claude (Anthropic)**. It was used for planning the experimental design, writing the C implementations, the input generator, the benchmark driver, the test, analysis and plotting scripts, the supplementary experiments and a first draft of this report. The affected parts are `src/`, `scripts/` and `report/`. The author is responsible for understanding the code, validating the measurements, checking the references and defending the conclusions; generated text is not evidence, and every number in this report was produced by the included code from the raw data in `results/`.

8 Reproducibility materials

Source code, build and run instructions, raw measurements, input-generation scripts and analysis scripts are in the repository `https://github.com/hugogzfz/bd-assignment2-matmul` and in `Assignment02_GonzalezFernandez_Materials.zip`. The `README.md` gives the exact commands (`make build inputs test bench analyze report`); the input matrices are not stored (about 5 GB) but regenerated with `scripts/gen_inputs.py` and verified against the SHA-256 digests in `data/manifest.json`; the dense inputs are identical to those of Assignment 1 (`data/a1_reference_sha256.json`). Raw data: `results/raw_measurements.csv` (one row per sample, warm-up included) and `results/runs.csv` (one row per process); environment: `results/environment.json`; every figure and table is generated by `scripts/analyze.py`. The measurement driver reads `/proc` and therefore needs Linux; the full campaign took several hours on the reported machine. The baseline kernel is that of Assignment 1 [1], whose structure was taken from the example implementations on the course website [2]; all other code, the driver, validation, supplementary experiments and analysis were written for this study with the AI assistance disclosed above. No other external code, text or figures are reused.

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